SE(3)-WAM: Role-Aware 4D World–Action Modeling for Dynamic Manipulation

Anonymous CVPR submission

Figure placeholder: Fig. 1 teaser — a role-aware 4D view of a moving scene (real robot)

Layout: full width, two parts. **(a) Left, ∼62%:** one real-robot frame of the *linear-motion grasp* at the instant a chunk is issued. Overlays in the paper's semantic colors: blue = the target's past SE(3) poses from the causal tracker (small triads at $-350 \ldots 0$ ms, fading with age); orange = the target's SE(3) forecast at the execution times of the chunk, taken from the training-time heads evaluated offline; light orange arrows = sparse 3D flow on the 14×14 grid over the whole scene; purple = the commanded gripper path meeting the target at τ^{a}. A gray ghost marks the pose observed at capture, with a dashed red arrow showing where a reactive policy would close. A thin timeline strip under the image: capture $\tau_t \rightarrow$ latency $\ell_t \rightarrow$ execution τ^{a}. **(b) Right, ∼38%:** top: "Image-space WAM: future frames or latents at uniform fidelity" (filmstrip icon); middle: "SE(3)-WAM: SE(3) for the target, sparse 3D flow for the whole scene, training only" (triads + sparse arrows); bottom **(required)**: SR vs. added latency (0–200 ms) for SE(3)-WAM and the strongest baseline (data: the latency sweep of Appendix D.2). **Rules:** real photo kept unretouched; overlays drawn from logged tracker/forecast/command data of that trial; caption states the trial's outcome.

Figure 1. **A role-aware 4D view of a moving scene.** Between image capture and the first command, a part on the conveyor moves farther than the grasp tolerates. SE(3)-WAM encodes the target's metric motion (blue) and is trained to forecast the target's SE(3) pose precisely and the whole scene coarsely as a sparse 3D flow (orange), so that its commands meet the target when they execute (purple). Image-space world–action models forecast appearance at uniform fidelity instead. Right: success against added latency on Dynamic-14.

Abstract

Manipulating moving objects requires actions that fit the scene when they execute, not when the image was captured, yet every millisecond spent inferring the scene's motion lets the target move further. World–action models forecast future images or latents at uniform fidelity, spending time on appearance while leaving the target's metric pose implicit; target-centric predictors are fast but ignore the surroundings that constrain or drive the motion. We observe that the parts of a dynamic scene need different precision: the target's pose decides contact to within millimeters, the bodies around it matter only through the clearance they leave and the motion they impart to the target, and the remaining background does not matter. We present SE(3)-WAM, a world–action model built on this role-aware 4D structure. It encodes the target's motion as a metric SE(3) pose history and is trained to forecast the target's future SE(3) trajectory precisely and the whole scene coarsely as a sparse 3D flow. The forecasts serve only as training supervision and are skipped at deployment, so inference needs neither past frames nor a generated future and stays fast enough for real-time control. On Dynamic-14, a simulated benchmark in which the scene keeps moving during inference, SE(3)-WAM achieves [XX.X]% success, [XX.X] points above the strongest baseline, and succeeds in [XX]% of trials on six real-robot tasks with diverse target motion.

1. Introduction

Learning-based manipulation has advanced rapidly, from diffusion policies to vision–language–action (VLA) and world–action models (WAMs) [5, 9, 20, 31, 44, 50, 65], yet most of this progress assumes that objects stay still unless the robot moves them. In factories, kitchens, and human–robot handovers, objects keep moving while the robot perceives, computes, and acts. This poses two coupled difficulties. A single image does not reveal how the target is moving, and by the time an action executes, the target is no longer where it was seen: a part on a conveyor at 0.1 m/s travels 15 mm during a 150 ms delay, more than a parallel-jaw grasp typically tolerates (Fig. 1).

Recent work equips policies with a memory of past motion and a forecast of the future [11, 27, 39, 57]. Both cost the resource that dynamic manipulation lacks most, time: richer histories and denser forecasts add computation, and the added latency enlarges the very error the forecast is meant to remove. Existing designs therefore trade information against speed. Video-based WAMs forecast whole future frames or latents at uniform fidelity [27, 44, 50], and methods that restrict prediction to dynamic regions or salient tokens still predict in image space [39, 57]. In both, most capacity goes to appearance, and the quantity that decides contact, the target's metric pose when the action executes, stays implicit. Target-centric predictors sit at the other end [11, 15, 28]: they are fast but blind to surroundings that

can block or redirect the motion. None of them provides knowledge of the moving scene that is precise where contact depends on it, coarse elsewhere, and cheap to use at execution time.

Our key observation is that a dynamic policy needs to know very little precisely. Contact depends on the target's pose at the moment the action executes, to within millimeters. The bodies around it matter only through the clearance they leave and the motion they impart to the target, which a coarse estimate captures, and the rest of the background does not matter. Nor does this knowledge have to be computed at test time: a forecast that supervises training shapes what the policy represents and can be dropped at deployment [54]. SE(3)-WAM builds on both ideas (Fig. 2). It sees the current image together with short metric SE(3) histories of the target and the robot, which convey motion directly instead of a stack of past frames. A world stream is trained to forecast, in one metric 4D space, the target's future SE(3) trajectory precisely and the whole scene coarsely as a sparse 3D flow, and an action stream reads the world stream's summary and replans as often as its latency permits. SE(3)-WAM thus gains the precision of a metric forecast at a latency close to that of a reactive policy.

We evaluate SE(3)-WAM on Dynamic-14, a simulated benchmark of fourteen tasks in which observation, scene motion, and action execution share one physical clock, so the scene keeps moving while a policy computes. SE(3)-WAM achieves state-of-the-art success of [XX.X]%, [XX.X] points above the strongest baseline, at a p95 latency of [XX] ms, and succeeds in [XX]% of trials on six real-robot tasks, against [XX]% for the strongest baseline. Four final-scale controls isolate the contributions of target-motion history, future supervision, and its two geometric components.

Our contributions are threefold:

- We propose role-aware 4D modeling for dynamic manipulation. Tracing how latency and estimation errors reach the contact shows that only the target needs millimeter precision, so we represent the target precisely by its metric SE(3) pose history and future trajectory, and the whole scene coarsely by a sparse 3D flow.
- We present SE(3)-WAM, a world–action model trained with these role-aware 4D forecasts as supervision, at a latency close to that of a reactive policy.
- We build Dynamic-14, in which the scene keeps moving during inference, and show state-of-the-art results on it and on six real-robot tasks.

2. Related Work

Dynamic manipulation. Compensating for the time between sensing and acting is a classical problem, from control with dead time [36] to catching systems that track the target with Kalman-type filters and plan an interception [1–3, 30]; such systems are precise but engineered for each object and task. Learned policies have recently been brought to moving scenes. PUMA reads historical optical flow and is supervised with future object features [11], DynamicWAM conditions a WAM on flow and kinematic descriptors and executes it with real-time chunking [27], and other methods forecast salient tokens, future images, or compact future codes and feed them to the policy at test time [28, 39, 55, 58]. Execution schemes instead reduce or hide latency, by overlapping inference with execution [32, 34, 48], keeping consecutive chunks consistent [6, 25], or conditioning on the execution time [40, 43]. They decide when actions are computed and applied, whereas SE(3)-WAM changes what the policy represents; we run every method under the same real-time executor.

Predictive supervision in world–action models. World–action models (WAMs) generate future video and actions in one network [23, 44, 50, 63], building on video prediction as a policy objective [16, 41, 47]. Because video is costly and dominated by appearance, recent work changes what is forecast, such as dynamic regions, depth, and semantic features [57], flow and geometry alongside RGB [53], object masks or slots [26, 51], or compact latents [21, 22], and asks whether the forecast is needed at test time: Fast-WAM retains most of the benefit of video modeling without test-time imagination [54], and PUMA and others drop their predictors after training [11, 38, 59]. SE(3)-WAM adopts this training-only use and changes the target of the supervision: instead of pixels, features, or latents at one resolution, a metric 4D state whose precision follows each entity's role in contact.

Geometric representations of motion. Metric 3D inputs make policies more precise and sample-efficient [12, 18, 33, 56]. Motion has been represented by 2D point tracks [4, 45, 49, 61], 3D flow [13, 17, 52, 62], and object keypoints or SE(3) trajectories [15, 29, 37, 46], and rigid-body decompositions have long been used to learn scene dynamics [7, 8]. These works describe the scene with one kind of representation, dense flow or tracks everywhere or a pose for each object; DOCIR separates the robot, the target, and obstacles, but as input encodings [10]. SE(3)-WAM assigns precision by role: a coarse sparse 3D flow describes the whole scene, and the target, on which contact depends to within millimeters, is additionally described by its SE(3) history and forecast. Appendix F discusses further related work.

3. SE(3)-WAM

SE(3)-WAM is a world–action model that represents a dynamic scene at role-dependent precision (Fig. 2). It encodes the current RGB-D frame, whose RGB a frozen MAE ViT-

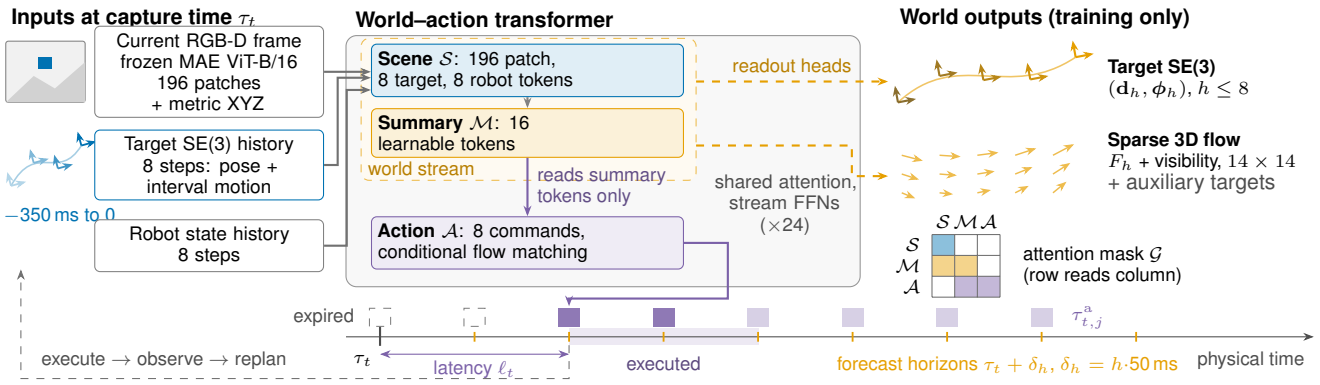


Figure 2. **SE(3)-WAM.** The world stream holds 212 scene tokens, the current image patches from a frozen encoder together with short histories of the target's metric SE(3) pose and of the robot state, and 16 summary tokens. During training, light heads read the world stream out into a role-aware 4D forecast at physical horizons $\tau_t + \delta_h$: the target's SE(3) trajectory and a sparse 3D flow with visibility on a 14×14 grid over the whole scene (dashed: training only). The action stream generates a chunk of 8 commands by flow matching. The attention mask $\mathcal{G}$ lets scene tokens read the scene, summary tokens read the scene and summaries, and actions read summaries and actions. The policy observes and replans at the first control boundary at or after each query ends, where the new chunk takes over from the command meant for that boundary.

B/16 [14] turns into 196 patch tokens and whose depth gives each patch the metric 3D position of its center point in the robot base frame, together with short histories of the target's SE(3) pose and of the robot state. These 212 scene tokens and 16 learnable summary tokens that aggregate them form a world stream, which forecast heads supervise during training with the target's future SE(3) trajectory and a sparse 3D flow of the whole scene. An action stream shares attention with the world stream, reads its summary tokens, and generates action chunks by conditional flow matching [24].

3.1. Problem Formulation

SE(3)-WAM learns a policy from demonstrations. At query t, the policy receives an RGB image, a depth map, and the robot state captured at time τ_t, together with short histories of the robot state and of the pose $T(\tau) = (R(\tau), \mathbf{p}(\tau)) \in \mathrm{SE}(3)$ of a target object in the robot base frame. It outputs a chunk $(\mathbf{a}_{t,0}, \ldots, \mathbf{a}_{t,H-1})$ of commands, one per control period Δ_a, indexed by time from capture: the j-th command is meant for

$$\tau^{\mathrm{a}}_{t,j} = \tau_t + j\Delta_a + d_{\mathrm{task}}. \tag{1}$$

Here d_{task} is a task's built-in command delay. The chunk becomes available only after a latency ℓ_t, so its commands with $j\Delta_a < \ell_t$ have expired, and the later ones execute at their times $\tau^{\mathrm{a}}_{t,j}$. A command must therefore fit the target's pose at $\tau^{\mathrm{a}}_{t,j}$ rather than at τ_t, a pose that the policy must estimate from observations at τ_t, and the lead $\Delta = \tau^{\mathrm{a}}_{t,j} - \tau_t$ of every executed command is at least ℓ_t, so it grows with every millisecond of inference. The bodies of a scene play different roles. The *target* is the body whose pose must be matched within a contact or containment tolerance ε, such as an object to grasp or a receptacle to place into. The *context* consists of the bodies that constrain or drive the target's motion: obstacles, such as an occluder or a wire, must be avoided with a clearance m, and drivers, such as a conveyor, a ramp, or a striker, move the target. The rest of the scene does not affect the task. Sec. 3.2 traces how the error of this estimate depends on the lead and on these roles, and derives the representation of SE(3)-WAM from it.

3.2. Role-Aware 4D Representation

What must be precise. Let a policy act, explicitly or implicitly, on an estimate of the target pose at τ^{a} with position error e and rotation error θ. A contact point at lever arm r is then off by at most $e + 2r\sin(\theta/2)$. Writing the target's motion over the lead as a constant velocity $\mathbf{v}$ plus a residual (acceleration, rolling, impacts), and the lead that the policy assumes as $\hat{\Delta}$, gives

$$e \le e_{\mathrm{loc}} + \hat{\Delta}\, e_v + \|\mathbf{v}\|\, e_\tau + e_{\mathrm{dyn}}, \tag{2}$$

with the errors e_{loc} of the current position, e_v of the velocity, $e_\tau = |\hat{\Delta} - \Delta|$ of the timing, and e_{dyn} of the residual motion (Appendix E). The tolerance ε is typically a few millimeters, and the rotation error is amplified by the lever arm, so the target's pose and motion must be known precisely. The context needs far less precision. An obstacle only has to be avoided with the clearance m, which is usually far larger than ε, and a driver matters through the motion it imparts to the target, which then appears in the target's own future; in both cases, the policy needs to know only roughly where the context moves (Fig. 3c). We therefore represent the target by metric SE(3) states, both its observed history and its forecast trajectory, and the whole scene by a sparse 3D flow, all in the robot base frame and in physical time.

Figure placeholder: Fig. 3 — acting on a moving target (schematic)

Layout: one row, three panels (a)–(c) of equal width, clean vector schematic in the paper's semantic colors; the same robot arm and T-shaped part in all panels; no photographs. **(a) Same pose, different motion:** two histories of the part, A (solid blue) and B (dashed blue), with ghost poses at $-100, -50, 0$ ms that end in the same pose at capture τ_t. Label: "current pose alone is ambiguous". **(b) Pose at execution:** a timeline strip under the panel: capture τ_t, then ticks every $\Delta_a = 50$ ms at the times $\tau^{\mathrm{a}}_{t,j}$ of the chunk's commands; the ticks before the chunk arrives at $\tau_t + \ell_t$ are grayed out as expired, and the first executed command is marked τ^{a}. Above it, the part at τ^{a} for A and B with different positions and rotations (orange triads). Label: "the command must fit the pose at τ^{a}". **(c) Roles:** one scene with three kinds of bodies. *Target*: the part with the end-effector frame E, the target frame O, the contact point, and tolerance ε (mm). *Context, obstacle*: a receptacle wall or occluder with a clearance arrow $m \gg \varepsilon$. *Context, driver*: the conveyor carrying the part, with a motion arrow, and optionally a striker approaching it; label "moves the target". *Background*: table edge and distant objects desaturated in gray; label "no effect". A three-row legend: target → precise SE(3); context → coarse 3D flow; background → nothing. **Rules:** conceptual illustration with hypothetical positions; blue past, orange future, purple command, gray background.

Figure 3. **Acting on a moving target** (schematic). (a) Two histories reach the same pose at capture time τ_t but imply different motions. (b) At the execution time τ^{a}, they lead to different target poses. (c) A contact requires the end-effector frame E to match the target O within ε; an obstacle in the context matters only through the gap $m \gg \varepsilon$ it leaves, a driver such as the conveyor matters through the motion it imparts to the target, and the background does not affect the task.

What latency allows. Latency enters Eq. (2) twice, through the lead that multiplies every velocity error and through the motion that the residual accumulates. Information that costs inference time therefore pays off only if it removes more error than the added latency creates. SE(3)-WAM keeps its inputs cheap, with one current image and low-dimensional state histories instead of past frames, and uses its forecasts only to supervise training, so that they add no inference time (Sec. 3.4).

Target motion: history and forecast. A single pose does not reveal how the target moves (Fig. 3a). The target history covers the last 8 control steps (350 ms at 20 Hz). It consists of the current target pose in the base frame and the seven interval motions between consecutive samples, each with its translation, relative rotation, time interval, and finite-difference velocity and acceleration in physical units, and forms 8 target-state tokens (Appendix A.1). These tokens state directly the velocity and acceleration on which e_v and part of e_{dyn} depend, at the cost of a few low-dimensional tokens. The robot history adds 8 end-effector state tokens. In simulation, the target pose comes from the simulator; on the real robot, a causal tracker estimates it from the RGB-D stream (Appendix C).

The forecast describes where the target will be when the commands execute (Fig. 3b). It covers fixed physical times $\tau_t + \delta_h$, with $\delta_h = h \cdot 50$ ms and $h = 1, \dots, 8$, from 50 ms to 400 ms after capture, so that every command time $\tau^{\mathrm{a}}_{t,j}$ with $j \geq 1$ is a forecast horizon. Like all our motion labels, it is cumulative from the current state, and every loss averages over valid labels only. For each horizon, the target's motion is

$$\mathbf{d}_h = \mathbf{p}(\tau_t + \delta_h) - \mathbf{p}(\tau_t), \quad \boldsymbol{\phi}_h = \mathrm{Log}\big(R(\tau_t + \delta_h) R(\tau_t)^\top\big)^\vee. \tag{3}$$

A linear pose head on the mean of the final summary tokens predicts $(\hat{\mathbf{d}}_h, \hat{\boldsymbol{\phi}}_h)$ with the loss

$$\mathcal{L}_P = \frac{1}{|\mathcal{V}|} \sum_{h \in \mathcal{V}} \Big[\|\hat{\mathbf{d}}_h - \mathbf{d}_h\|^2 + \lambda_R \, d_{\mathrm{SO}(3)}\big(\hat{R}_h, R_h\big)^2 \Big], \tag{4}$$

where $\hat{R}_h = \mathrm{Exp}(\hat{\boldsymbol{\phi}}_h^\wedge) R(\tau_t)$ and $\mathcal{V}$ is the set of valid horizons. Because the pose head reads the summary tokens, the only world tokens that the actions attend to (Sec. 3.3), the precise target supervision shapes exactly the representation that the actions use. The past and the future of the target thus share one metric frame and one time axis.

Scene motion: sparse 3D flow. The center points of the 196 patches on the 14×14 grid cover the target, the robot, and the surroundings. For each point i and horizon h, a linear head on its final patch token predicts the base-frame displacement $\hat{F}_{ih} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ and a visibility logit $\hat{o}_{ih}$, and

$$\mathcal{L}_F = \frac{1}{|\mathcal{V}_F|} \sum_{(i,h) \in \mathcal{V}_F} \Big[\tfrac{1}{3} \big\| (\hat{F}_{ih} - F_{ih})/s \big\|^2 + \mathrm{BCE}(\hat{o}_{ih}, o_{ih}) \Big], \tag{5}$$

with a fixed scale s fitted on the training labels, the visibility o_{ih}, and the set $\mathcal{V}_F$ of valid labels. The grid samples the workspace sparsely, about [X] mm between points. The flow thus gives the context and the robot a motion estimate at this spacing and stays near zero on the static background, while the target additionally receives the dedicated SE(3) supervision of Eq. (4). The flow supervises the patch tokens from which the summaries draw, one level below the precise target supervision; this is how SE(3)-WAM allocates precision by role.

Auxiliary supervision. Two further targets regularize the representation; we selected them on development scenes (Appendix D.5). Future appearance heads on the patch tokens predict, at every horizon, the metric depth, the features of a frozen DINOv3 teacher [35], and the RGB of moving surfaces. Separately, a small head on the summary tokens reconstructs the RGB of the current target region, which ties the summaries to the target without a future label. Their losses form $\mathcal{L}_{\mathrm{aux}}$ (Appendix A.2).

3.3. Action Generation and Joint Learning

Action stream. The action stream holds $H = 8$ tokens, one per command of the chunk; each embeds a noisy command, an end-effector translation and rotation increment plus

a gripper command (Appendix A.3). The attention mask $\mathcal{G}$ lets scene tokens attend to the scene, summary tokens to the scene and the summaries, and action tokens to the summaries and the actions, so the actions read the world through the summary tokens and the world stream does not depend on the actions. In every layer, both streams share the attention projections, through which they exchange information, and keep separate feed-forward networks, which give each its own capacity; we selected this backbone over fully separate parameters on development scenes (Appendix D.5). World tokens use layer normalization, and action tokens use adaptive layer normalization conditioned on the flow time.

Joint learning. For a chunk $\mathbf{a}_1$ normalized with training statistics (Appendix A.3), noise $\mathbf{a}_0 \sim \mathcal{N}(0, I)$, and flow time $u \sim \mathcal{U}[0, 1]$, the action stream v_ψ, with parameters ψ, regresses the flow-matching velocity

$$\mathcal{L}_A = \mathbb{E} \left\| v_\psi(\mathbf{a}_u, u \mid \mathcal{S}_t, \mathcal{G}) - (\mathbf{a}_1 - \mathbf{a}_0) \right\|^2, \qquad (6)$$

with $\mathbf{a}_u = (1-u)\mathbf{a}_0 + u\mathbf{a}_1$, the scene tokens $\mathcal{S}_t$ of query t, and the error averaged over valid commands. All parts are trained jointly with

$$\mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}_A + \lambda_P \mathcal{L}_P + \lambda_F \mathcal{L}_F + \lambda_{\text{aux}} \mathcal{L}_{\text{aux}}, \qquad (7)$$

with the weights given in Sec. 4.1.

3.4. Efficient Inference and Execution

SE(3)-WAM trains its forecast heads jointly and skips them at test time, as recent WAMs do [23, 54]. Because world tokens attend neither to the actions nor to the flow time, the world stream runs once per query, and the action stream integrates 5 Euler steps on its cached keys and values. The executor counts latency in whole control periods, as RTC does [6]. A query of total latency L_t hands its chunk over at the first control-period boundary at or after it ends, $\ell_t = k_t \Delta_a$ after capture with $k_t = \lceil L_t / \Delta_a \rceil$, and execution continues from command k_t, the one meant for that boundary. There the policy observes again and starts the next query; until then, the executor continues the previous chunk. The policy therefore replans as often as its latency allows, before every command when a query fits in one control period. Because each command is issued at the time its label refers to, the action stream needs no latency input, and the timing error e_τ of Eq. (2) is limited to actuation delays. Every executed command, at most $(H-1)\Delta_a + d_{\text{task}}$ after capture, lies within the horizons of the forecast supervision (Appendix B.3). On the robot, L_t also includes tracking the target in the newest frame.

4. Experiments

We evaluate how SE(3)-WAM performs when the scene keeps moving during inference (Sec. 4.2), how it transfers to a real robot (Sec. 4.3), and what each of its components contributes (Sec. 4.4).

4.1. Setup

Dynamic-14. Dynamic-14 is a simulated benchmark in which observation, scene motion, and action execution share one physical clock, so the scene keeps moving while a policy computes and every method pays for its own latency. [One sentence on how this differs from existing dynamic-manipulation benchmarks, to be confirmed.] It contains fourteen tasks in MuJoCo/robosuite [42, 64] in five families: grasping a moving target (harmonic, conveyor, translating, rotating, and occluded motion), placing into a moving receptacle, passing a wand along a rotating wire, capturing rolling or sliding objects, and grasping after an impact (Fig. 4; Appendix B). Experts with privileged simulator state provide 800 demonstrations per task. We select configurations on development scenes and report all Dynamic-14 results on 1,400 held-out scenes (100 per task, new seeds).

Evaluation. During each query, physics advances by the method's own inference latency, drawn from its latency distribution measured at batch size 1 on one RTX 5090, the GPU of our robot; the rollouts themselves run on RTX PRO 6000 (Appendix B.7). All methods share one executor that indexes each chunk by time from capture (Sec. 3.4): a query starts at a control-period boundary, and its chunk takes over at the first boundary at or after the query ends (Appendix B.3). Besides this native-latency setting, we add 150 ms of latency to every method and pause physics during inference; Appendix D.2 adds equal-latency and original-executor controls and a sweep of added latency. We report the success rate (SR), averaged over the fourteen tasks with equal weight and over training seeds, and the p95 time-to-action, the measured time from an observation to its first command. Our variants average three training seeds, each baseline is trained once, and paired 95% intervals come from a bootstrap over held-out scenes.

Baselines. We compare with reactive policies, dynamic VLAs, image- or latent-space WAMs, and a dynamic WAM (Table 1). Each baseline is trained on the same demonstrations with its official code, inputs, and recipe, including a rendered wrist camera and frame or flow histories where the recipe uses them (Appendix B.4). SE(3)-WAM uses one agent view with its depth and the target's SE(3) history, without past frames. To give baselines the same target-motion information, $\pi_{0.5}$ and DynamicWAM also run with our SE(3) history tokens (+SE(3)).

Implementation. The transformer has 24 layers of width 1024 with 16 heads and 523.8M trainable parameters; the MAE ViT-B/16 encoder and the DINOv3 teacher stay frozen.

Figure placeholder: Fig. 4 — the fourteen Dynamic-14 tasks

Layout: full width, two rows of seven equal panels, one per task, rendered agent-view frames of Dynamic-14 (no photographs). A thin family label bar spans each group of panels. Row 1: *Grasp* (harmonic, conveyor, translating, rotating, occluded) and *Place* (moving receptacle, rotating receptacle). Row 2: *Pass* (wire passage, full wire passage), *Capture* (ball, ball on table, slider, can), and *Impact* (post-impact grasp). Task name under each panel. **Each panel:** cropped to the region in which the target moves, at the same scale in all panels; 3–4 semi-transparent past poses of the target and an arrow for its motion, so that the motion pattern is visible (oscillation, straight line, rotation, disappearance behind the occluder, rolling, deflection after the impact); obstacles outlined and drivers marked in the role colors of Fig. 3c. **Rules:** no timeline (Figs. 2 and 3 already show one); same camera in all panels.

Figure 4. **Dynamic-14.** Fourteen tasks in five families, each shown with the recent motion of its target. Observation, scene motion, and execution share one physical clock, so the scene keeps moving while a policy computes.

Table 1. **Main results** on 1,400 held-out Dynamic-14 scenes. SR (%) averages the fourteen tasks with equal weight and three training seeds for SE(3)-WAM (one for baselines), with each method's native latency, with 150 ms of added latency, and with physics paused during inference. p95: time-to-action (ms) at batch size 1 on one RTX 5090; these latencies are replayed in rollouts that run on RTX PRO 6000. All methods receive the current agent-view RGB and the robot state. Wrist: an additional wrist camera. History: past RGB frames (RGB), an optical-flow or flow-based motion history (Flow), or the target's SE(3) history. SE(3)-WAM additionally uses the depth of the current frame to give each patch its metric 3D position. DP: Diffusion Policy. Best in bold. Per-family and per-task results, contact errors, and intervals in Appendix D.1.

		History			SR (%)			
Method	Wrist	RGB	Flow	SE(3)	Native	+150	Paused	p95
ACT [60]	✓				—	—	—	—
DP [9]	✓	✓			—	—	—	—
$\pi_{0.5}$ [31]	✓				—	—	—	—
$\pi_{0.5}$+SE(3)	✓			✓	—	—	—	—
DynamicVLA [48]		✓			—	—	—	—
PUMA [11]			✓		—	—	—	—
DreamVLA [57]	✓	✓			—	—	—	—
OpenWAM-α [44]	✓				—	—	—	—
DynamicWAM [27]			✓		—	—	—	—
DynamicWAM+SE(3)			✓	✓	—	—	—	—
SE(3)-WAM				✓	—	—	—	—

On Dynamic-14, it trains from random initialization for 20 epochs with AdamW, $\lambda_P = \lambda_F = 1$, and $\lambda_R = \lambda_{\text{aux}} = 0.1$ (Appendix A.4). On the real robot, it is fine-tuned per task from a 48-layer base pretrained on DROID [19] (Appendix A.5).

4.2. Simulation Results

Comparison. With its native latency, SE(3)-WAM reaches [XX.X]% SR on held-out Dynamic-14 scenes (Table 1), [X.X] points above the strongest baseline, [name], and [X.X] points above the strongest baseline that receives the same SE(3) history, [name]. Its gains are largest on [task types] (Appendix D.1). Its p95 time-to-action of [XX] ms is [X]× lower than that of the image-space WAMs and [close to that of the reactive policies]. It uses one camera view and no past frames, whereas most baselines also receive a wrist view or a frame or flow history.

Latency and protocols. With 150 ms of added latency, SE(3)-WAM keeps [XX.X]% SR, whereas the reactive policies drop to [XX.X]% and the image-space WAMs to [XX.X]% on average; Fig. 1 (right) and Appendix D.2 give the full sweep from 0 to 200 ms. With physics paused during inference, which ignores the cost of computation, SE(3)-WAM still leads [name] by [X.X] points, against [X.X] points with native latency. When every method is charged the p95 latency of SE(3)-WAM, its margin is [X.X] points, and running [the baselines that rely on their own asynchronous execution] with their original executors changes their SR by at most [X.X] points (Appendix D.2).

DOMINO. We also train SE(3)-WAM, $\pi_{0.5}$, DynamicWAM, and PUMA on 24 single-arm Franka tasks of DOMINO [11] with its demonstrations and evaluate them with its native evaluator. SE(3)-WAM reaches [XX.X]% SR against [XX.X]% for [the strongest baseline] (Appendix D.3). As on Dynamic-14, it reads the simulator pose of the target.

4.3. Real-Robot Experiments

We evaluate six tasks on a Franka arm ([model]) with [gripper model] and a fixed RealSense D435 RGB-D camera

Figure placeholder: Fig. 4 — real-robot trials

Rows: a success of SE(3)-WAM; the strongest baseline on the same trial key; a failure of SE(3)-WAM. **Columns:** the query frame, the first execution time τ^{a}, and contact. **Overlays:** blue tracked past poses; purple commanded gripper path. Real photos, unretouched; overlays from logged data of each trial.

Figure 5. **Real-robot trials** of SE(3)-WAM and [the strongest baseline] on the same trial key (top two rows) and a failure of SE(3)-WAM (bottom). [One-sentence description of the selected trials.]

Figure placeholder: Fig. 6 — ablation effects by task

SR difference to the full model of each of the four controls and of the CV-input alternative, per task family and for the rotating-target tasks, at 0 and 150 ms added latency; paired 95% bootstrap intervals over the same held-out scenes and three training seeds.

Figure 6. **Ablation effects by task.** SR difference of each control to the full model. [Summarize where each component matters.]

Table 2. **Real-robot results.** Success rate (%) on six tasks: T1 conveyor grasping, T2 moving-receptacle placement, T3 turntable grasping, T4 moving-car grasping, T5 post-collision interception, and T6 ramp interception (20 trials per task and method). All pools the trials; intervals in Appendix C.

Method	T1	T2	T3	T4	T5	T6	All
$\pi_{0.5}$	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
DynamicWAM	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
Diffusion Policy	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
SE(3)-WAM	—	—	—	—	—	—	—

(Fig. S3, Table S8), comparing SE(3)-WAM with $\pi_{0.5}$, DynamicWAM, and Diffusion Policy [9]: conveyor grasping (T1), placement into a receptacle on the conveyor (T2), turntable grasping (T3), grasping a moving toy car (T4), intercepting a ball after a collision (T5), and intercepting an object that rolls or slides down a ramp (T6). Together they cover linear, circular, free planar, post-impact, and gravity-accelerated target motion. Each method is trained or fine-tuned per task on the same 100 teleoperated demonstrations, with 20 separate validation demonstrations, and runs 20 trials per task with shared trial keys. SE(3)-WAM tracks the target with [tracker] and runs on one RTX 5090 with a p95

Table 3. **Core ablations** of the final 24-layer model on held-out Dynamic-14 scenes (three training seeds). Each row changes one component of SE(3)-WAM (*). Native, +150 ms: success (%) with native latency and with 150 ms of added latency. Bottom: the CV-input alternative, which replaces the forecast losses by constant-velocity extrapolations as input tokens. e_p: position error at first contact (mm). p95: time-to-action (ms).

Variant	Native	+150 ms	e_p	p95
SE(3)-WAM *	—	—	—	—
No target history	—	—	—	—
No future supervision	—	—	—	—
No scene-flow supervision	—	—	—	—
No dedicated SE(3)	—	—	—	—
CV input	—	—	—	—

time-to-action of [XX] ms. It succeeds in [XX.X]% of all trials, against [XX.X]% for [the strongest baseline] (Table 2). [Where its advantage is largest, and its dominant failure mode] (Fig. 5).

4.4. Ablations

Four controls each change one component of the final model and keep the data, recipe, and training budget, with three training seeds each (Table 3, Fig. 6). We evaluate them under the real-time protocol at 0 and 150 ms of added delay.

Target history. The no-history control keeps the current image, the current target pose, and the robot history, and removes the past target poses with their velocity and acceleration features. Without them, SR changes by [signed X.X] points at 0 ms and [signed X.X] points at 150 ms of added delay (Fig. 6). Under synthetic pose noise, SE(3)-WAM keeps [XX.X]% SR (Appendix D.4).

Future supervision. The no-future control removes all forecast losses, the SE(3), scene-flow, and future appearance targets, and keeps the current-target RGB reconstruction. It changes SR by [signed X.X] points at 0 ms and [signed X.X] points at 150 ms, which measures the effect of future supervision as a whole. As an alternative to learned supervision, the CV-input variant drops the forecast losses and instead receives constant-velocity extrapolations of the target pose as input tokens (Appendix B.4); it trails SE(3)-WAM by [X.X] points.

The two geometric components. The other two controls keep all auxiliary targets. Removing the scene-flow supervision changes SR by [signed X.X] points; since the flow covers the whole scene, this measures coarse scene motion as a whole rather than the surroundings alone. Removing the dedicated SE(3) supervision leaves the target with only the

coarse flow that every part of the scene receives and changes SR by [signed X.X] points, most on [task families]. Fig. S5 shows what the SE(3) head predicts at the execution time.

5. Conclusion

We presented SE(3)-WAM, a world–action model for manipulating moving objects that spends precision where contact depends on it and time only where it pays off. It remembers the target's metric SE(3) motion instead of past frames, learns to forecast the target's SE(3) trajectory precisely and the whole scene coarsely as a sparse 3D flow, and lets its actions read a representation shaped by these forecasts without generating them at test time. On Dynamic-14, where the scene keeps moving while a policy computes, and on six real-robot tasks, it improves on reactive, dynamic, and world–action policies. Four final-scale controls examine the metric motion history, future supervision, and its two geometric components. [State the supported component-level conclusions after the core ablations.]

Limitations. SE(3)-WAM assumes a rigid target that moves on its own until contact, so deformable or articulated targets and post-contact dynamics are outside its scope. It depends on a pose estimate of the target, and tracker failures propagate to the policy; in simulation we read the pose from the simulator. The regressed target forecast cannot represent multimodal futures, e.g., before an impact. Our real-robot base learns from DROID without target poses, so its pose-related parts are learned only during fine-tuning. Finally, our tasks have a single target and slow context motion.

LLM Usage Statement

[To be completed before submission: actual tools used, affected parts of the research and manuscript, and extent of use.]

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